



Putin's Arctic Strategy

Collaboration or Conflict after Ukraine?

Thomas E. Rotnem

To cite this article: Thomas E. Rotnem (2018) Putin's Arctic Strategy, Problems of Post-Communism, 65:1, 1-17, DOI: [10.1080/10758216.2016.1222869](https://doi.org/10.1080/10758216.2016.1222869)

To link to this article: <https://doi.org/10.1080/10758216.2016.1222869>



Published online: 27 Oct 2016.



Submit your article to this journal [↗](#)



Article views: 1342



View related articles [↗](#)



View Crossmark data [↗](#)



Citing articles: 1 View citing articles [↗](#)

Putin's Arctic Strategy

Collaboration or Conflict after Ukraine?

Thomas E. Rotnem 

Department of Political Science and International Affairs, Kennesaw State University, Kennesaw, Georgia

Russia's Arctic policy was inaugurated not only to harvest the vast economic resources to be found there, but also for the associated political benefits of restoring Russia's status vis-à-vis the West and appealing to Russian pride, patriotism, and exceptionalism, notions especially important for Putin's regime after the disturbances of 2011. While Russia's activity in the region had been more collaborative than conflictual, since the 2013–2014 Ukrainian events a more confrontational approach has emerged—an approach driven by increasing disappointment and frustration with the West.

PROLOGUE

As the Arctic Ocean warms, a variety of states—both the “Arctic 5”¹ and those more distant—have intensified their interest in the region. The Russian Federation has arguably been the one most engaged in the Arctic, particularly since Vladimir Putin's second term as president. The Kremlin's Arctic focus is part of a two-pronged strategy—one economic, the other political—to use the Arctic for long-term economic development as well as for status augmentation vis-à-vis the West and a legitimating formula to increase popular support for the regime.²

Russia's activity in the Arctic, sometimes peppered with disturbing rhetorical flourishes and sporadic military encounters before the events in Ukraine in early 2014, nevertheless was mostly characterized by collaboration with other Arctic powers. In the aftermath of President Viktor Yanukovich's fall, however, Russia's actions in the Far North began to display a more confrontational approach due to increasing frustration and disappointment with the West, borne out by the Kremlin's heightened perceptions of a Western threat as well as the sanctions regime itself. As

such, Russia's evolving approach to the Arctic will be discussed, while also assessing the attendant risks associated with Putin's Arctic strategy in the “post-Ukraine” security and current economic environment.

INTRODUCTION

Harkening back to the days of Soviet Arctic glory, the Putin regime early on demonstrated Russia's interest in the Arctic by submitting a claim in 2001 before the United Nations (UN) Commission on the Limits of the Continental Shelf. After the commission found that the claim lacked sufficient supporting scientific evidence, the Russians stepped up their scientific and development interests in the region in the near term, culminating in 2007 with the dramatic planting of the titanium Russian flag on the seabed at the North Pole. This symbolic gesture, which the regime conceded had no legal meaning, nevertheless presumably masked Russia's real interest in the region—extracting the vast stores of hydrocarbons and precious gems and metals that underlie Russia's adjoining Arctic seas. However, beyond purely economic interests, what other factors may have spurred Russia's greater involvement in the region? As well, why has Russia's Arctic policy become more conflictual vis-à-vis the West in recent times?

With these research questions in mind, data for the study was compiled from an exhaustive review of books, articles, and journalistic accounts of Arctic affairs, in general, and Russia's

Address correspondence to Thomas E. Rotnem, Department of Political Science and International Affairs, Kennesaw State University, Social Sciences Building (SO 402), Room 5044, Kennesaw, GA 30144, USA. E-mail: trotnem@kennesaw.edu.

Color versions of one or more figures in this article can be found online at www.tandfonline.com/mppec

role in the Arctic, more specifically. Additionally, numerous Russian-language source materials, including books, newspaper articles, government documents, and speeches of important Russian government officials were examined, particularly as they pertained to Arctic matters. In the end, I also found the status and honor literature in international relations to be a useful theoretical backdrop for the study.

Based upon this careful review, it appears that, beyond purely economic interests in the Arctic, the regime's considerable concern for the Far North is also predicated upon enhancing its international status vis-à-vis the West, as well as signaling to its domestic audience that Russia's return to the Arctic is an historic and vital goal.

With the 2011 Moscow demonstrations and his return to the presidency in early 2012, Putin's regime appears to have continued championing the Arctic and its untrammelled development not only for economic purposes, but also, in part, for these international and domestic political purposes. Such developments were part and parcel of both a continuing search for status and respect with regard to Western states and a multi-threaded legitimating factor that Putin had pursued since coming to power, but now saw the vital need to ramp up yet again. In other words, his "Arctic Strategy" was just one appendage of a "social competition strategy" (Clunan 2014), seeking global recognition and status through internal development; it also serves as one tentacle of the emerging legitimating political formula known as "Putinism," one that—in part—recalled former Soviet glories and gave voice and promise to those yet to come.

Thus, such rhetorical flourishes regarding the Russian Arctic, accompanied from time to time with more bellicose verbiage, was largely enunciated both for status augmentation purposes and for domestic consumption, as many have argued that the Russian approach toward Arctic issues at this time was largely collaborative, rather than conflictual. Indeed, Russia has been a long-time, active member of both the Arctic Council and the Barents Euro-Arctic Council, two intergovernmental organizations that are procedurally consensus-oriented. However, after the Ukraine events of late 2013, culminating in Russia's illegal annexation of Crimea in March 2014, it is my contention that Russian actions and pronouncements regarding the Arctic region have become less collaborative and more conflictual in nature, due primarily to the Kremlin's unrequited status-seeking efforts and a necessity to augment domestic support for the regime. In this paper, I seek to discern how these turns of events have come together to result in an evolving and changed tenor of the Russian government toward its Arctic redoubt. As well, I will discuss why the regime's focus on the Arctic since mid-2015 appears to have drifted.

It is doubtful that President Putin's risky,³ two-pronged strategy toward the Arctic will pay the economic—and perhaps political—dividends he hopes it will, given the altered security environment since Ukraine, the recent downturn in global hydrocarbon markets, and the potential

negative domestic political repercussions from an Arctic boondoggle that promises a lot, but may deliver very little. In the final analysis, however, there is still hope that there will be a return to a more collaborative approach to the Arctic that will win out over the more recent evolution toward confrontation.

THE KREMLIN'S "ARCTIC GOLDEN GOOSE"

Russia's two-pronged Arctic strategy is predicated upon a warming Arctic, something that the UN's Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (IPCC) claims will continue with a high degree of confidence. Indeed, the IPCC's Fifth Assessment Report indicated that during the 1979–2012 period, the average loss of Arctic Sea ice very likely reached between 3.5 percent and 4.1 percent per decade.⁴ As well, the report predicted that Arctic Sea ice may vanish within thirty to forty years (Working Group I 2013).

Such conditions allow easier access to the significant hydrocarbon deposits mentioned earlier, as well as rich stores of gems,⁵ mineral ores, and rare earth metals located in the Arctic region.⁶ Indeed, a 2008 study by the U.S. Geological Survey (USGS) revealed that 30 percent of the world's undiscovered natural gas reserves and 13 percent of the globe's oil reserves were located in the Arctic, with Russia's offshore shelf region perhaps holding a majority share of these totals (Bird et al. 2008). Of these figures, approximately 240 billion barrels of oil and equivalents (mainly natural gas) have already been found, a figure that constitutes nearly as much as the total proven reserves of the Kingdom of Saudi Arabia. Beyond this, it was estimated early on that another 400 billion barrels of oil and oil equivalents lay "undiscovered" still in the Arctic region (Emmerson 2010).⁷

A cursory perusal of the USGS study's data on the likely areas for potential recoverable assets demonstrate that two of these areas lie just north of Russia, in the Barents Sea basin and the West Siberian basin (i.e., the Kara and Laptev Sea regions) of the Arctic Ocean.⁸ (See Table 1 and Figure 1.) By USGS and Russian estimates, therefore, the Arctic basins to the north of Russia constituted a huge potential for fossil fuel extraction, perhaps dwarfing the 80 billion barrels of oil that Russia's onshore Arctic oilfields yielded to 2008 (Sale 2010).

Although Russia has been active in oil and natural gas exploration in its Arctic regions since at least the 1970s, the offshore areas that the 2008 USGS study indicates hold promising reserves did not attract much attention for a number of reasons, owing mainly to the harsh environment and icy seas. Thanks to climate change, however, this has changed and Russia's leadership has turned its attention resolutely toward exploration in the offshore Arctic. As President Dmitrii Medvedev said at a September 2008 Security Council meeting, "Our first and main task is to

TABLE 1
Arctic Basins with High Probability of Significant Fossil Fuel Deposits

<i>Petroleum Basin</i>	<i>Natural Gas (trillion cubic ft)</i>	<i>Natural Gas Liquids* (billion barrels)</i>	<i>Crude Oil (billion barrels)</i>	<i>Total (oil equivalent in billions of barrels)</i>
Yenisey-Khatang basin	99.96	2.68	5.58	24.92
West Siberian basin	651.50	20.33	3.66	132.57
East Barents basin	317.56	1.42	7.41	61.76
East Greenland Rift basin	86.18	8.12	8.90	31.39
West Greenland-East Canada basin	51.82	1.15	7.27	17.06
Amerasia basin	56.89	0.54	9.72	19.75
Arctic Alaska basin	221.40	5.90	29.96	72.77

Source: Bird et al. 2008.

*Natural gas liquids include fuels and chemicals that are separated out from either natural gas or crude oil and include ethane, butane, propane, isobutene, and natural gasoline. They may also be used as feedstocks to make a variety of chemicals and plastics.

turn the Arctic into Russia's resource base for the twenty-first century" (Arctic Resources 2008). With taxation of fossil fuels⁹ production or oil and natural gas exports still accounting for at least 40 percent of Russia's budget and

with oil and gas production in many of the country's aging fields declining (Conley and Rohloff 2015), the government placed the Arctic at the center of its near-term economic priorities.¹⁰

Since 2008, the Medvedev and Putin administrations have spent considerable sums developing infrastructure in the Far North, as well as for exploration,¹¹ drilling, and production at state-owned Gazprom's Prirazlomnoye offshore oil field, its onshore Yamal gas deposits at Bovanenkova, and more recently for the joint venture between Gazprom and Novatek for the port and LNG (liquefied natural gas) plant at Sabetta, which will serve the Yuzhno-Tambeykoe gas-field, also on the Yamal peninsula. In future, Gazprom Neft, a subsidiary of Gazprom, will build an oil production facility on Yamal as well as directly offshore. The state has also supported extensive exploration and potential drilling projects in the south Kara Sea by the country's other state-owned oil and gas company, Rosneft. As of mid-2015, Rosneft planned to spend a total of \$400 billion in Arctic offshore fields over the next twenty years (Chehade 2015).¹²

However, the Russian leadership also hopes to develop the Arctic for additional purposes: to create a safe, reliable transit route, the "Northern Sea Route" (NSR), for intra-Arctic and transoceanic shipping, which will serve both as an export route for Russia's LNG, oil, and minerals, while garnering Russia transport revenues from foreign-flagged cargo ships that wish to take advantage of the shortest transit route between Europe and Asia. As President Putin remarked, "Huge interest around the world is focused on our



FIGURE 1 Arctic Oil and Natural Gas Basin Map.

Source: U.S. Energy Information Administration (January 2012).

NSR.... Considering that Russia has the largest icebreaking fleet in the world, we are going to develop and use this economic advantage of ours” (Putin: *Arktika* 2013). The regime champions the NSR’s advantages over the Suez Canal, proclaiming that the route hugging Russia’s northern shores is 40 percent shorter, significantly cheaper, and avoids the pirate-infested waters of the Indian Ocean and transit backlogs through the Straits of Malacca.

With Arctic Sea ice receding to about half the extent of that in 1979 (Bering Strait 2013), between 2010 and 2013, transits through the NSR rose significantly. In 2010, only four ships plied its waters, carrying 110,000 tons of cargo. In 2012, a total of 46 ships traversed the NSR, and in 2013, 71 ships with 1.4 million tons of cargo sailed the NSR. Plans exist to increase total tonnage transiting the route to seventy million by 2030 (Litvinova and Makarov 2014). One early study estimated that trans-NSR shipping may grow by thirty times by then (Koranyi, 2013).

As a consequence, the Medvedev and Putin administrations have passed a variety of strategic economic plans,¹³ each in part dedicating some efforts and resources to fully developing the NSR, including updating port facilities, building search and rescue stations, improving communication and weather-forecasting facilities, and dredging river deltas to improve cargo turnover. In addition, the government is investing in bringing a number of next-generation icebreakers on line in the shortest possible timeframe, adding to its already formidable fleet of 42 nuclear- or diesel-powered icebreakers.¹⁴

The Putin administration demonstrated its view in 2013 that the NSR is a geo-strategic asset, as well, making plans in September of that year to begin regular naval patrols along the shipping lane. At that time, the Russian minister of defense announced the policy shift, after sending the flagship of the Russian Northern Fleet, the heavy nuclear-powered battlecruiser, *Pyotr Velikii* (“Peter the Great”), at the head of a flotilla of ships plying through much of the NSR. Besides helping to stop the flow of illegal drugs and immigrants into the northernmost reaches of Russia in the warmest months of the year, the plan converges nicely with Russia’s goal to extend its claims to sovereignty over heretofore sparsely traveled coastal waters to its north. It also allows the country to exert incipient sovereign claims to seabed resources in areas adjacent to its continental shelf, for example, along the Mendeleev and Lomonosov ridges, two seabed ridges that, if recognized as part of the Russian shelf, would extend Russia’s claims to fossil fuel, additional non-hydrocarbon resources, fishing grounds, and perhaps transport routes well into the Arctic Ocean.

Although the exploitation of Russia’s Arctic regions has been a vital economic interest to the regime for some time, “mastering the Arctic” has also been important for both global and domestic political purposes, especially after the demonstrations in 2011–2012 and Putin’s return to the presidency.

THE IMPORTANCE OF RUSSIA’S FAR NORTH: THE SEARCH FOR GLOBAL STATUS AND A LEGITIMATING IDEOLOGICAL FRAMEWORK

Besides the potential economic benefits accruing from such Arctic endeavors, the Putin regime also pursued a vigorous Arctic policy in order to gain status vis-à-vis the West, as well as support from its domestic audience. Before providing evidence to support these assertions, I will first reflect more widely upon status augmentation and “Putinism” in contemporary Russia. In my view, the two have become wholly linked in Putin’s Arctic strategy.

According to psychologists as well as other social scientists, the need for social status is a crucial motivation for human behavior (Tajfel 1978; Wright 1994; Lebow 2008). An individual’s status is suggested by the position or rank held “within a publicly acknowledged or collectively understood social hierarchy” (Ward 2013). And, as Heller (2014) argues, claims for respect proffered by individuals are “active requests to acknowledge” one’s social status, which is something that groups and states, too, require or seek. Indeed, Lebow (2006) concurs, asserting that the quest for status among the latter—that is, states seeking to gain honor or standing—is an endeavor that can be traced back millennia to the Greek notion of “spirit.” What is more, all states seek status, not merely the great powers (Carvalho and Neumann 2014).

Much like Wood (2013), Morgenthau (1973) discussed status or “prestige” as a political resource, perhaps not as important as power, but nonetheless significant, as “what others think about us is as important as what we actually are.” Here, again, is the requirement that status is something that must be conceded by others, for it “has no meaning until it is acknowledged” from without (Lebow 2008). Therefore, status inconsistency—or the situation that arises when a given state believes it has not been accorded by others the level of status it deems necessary—can lead to hostile or aggressive responses (Ward 2013); some argue competition for status is a fundamental cause of warfare (Lebow 2010).

Russia’s “quest for respect” (or status) from the West is nothing novel, having been a “constant factor, driving post-Soviet Russian foreign policy” since the early 1990s (Heller 2014). Sakwa concludes that this drive is perhaps centuries old (2008). However long status concerns have directed Russian, Soviet, or post-Soviet elites, some argue that such interests have become more significant than economic or security questions in today’s Russia (Forsberg et al. 2014). Forsberg (2014) avers that what is most important is not the objective status position held by Russia, but the perceptual gap between the West and Russia concerning what status is. Kortunov (2016) also argues that, at base, misperception and misunderstanding regarding the cultural norm of respect are the cause of current Western–Russian difficulties.

Tsygankov (2014) maintains that, besides the perceptual distinction between Western and Russian conceptions of

honor, a complicating factor in the relationship is Russia's own "deep emotional connection to the West," which creates an intense quasi "sibling rivalry." Accordingly, when Russia's elites believe the country is being respected by the West, Russia "displays emotions of hope," whereas frustration and anger set in when the Kremlin feels the West has disregarded its honor or identity. This then portends status-inconsistent, assertive, and aggressive behavior on the part of Russia. After the events in Ukraine, Russia's elite felt demeaned by the West, hence the subsequent evolution from collaboration toward greater confrontation in the regime's Arctic policy.

Yet, Tsygankov's article also draws attention to the domestic side of Russian status concerns, discussing how foreign policy elites must at one and the same time address foreign and local audiences.

Similarly, Ward (2013) and Swart (2016) underscore the link between international relations, status, and the domestic realm in different cultural contexts.¹⁵ To be sure, Forsberg et al. (2014), agree, saying that elites value status for instrumental purposes as well as for intrinsic ones, as status bolsters their domestic legitimacy and popularity. For their part, the mass public views the country's status and standing as vitally important, tending to "project many of their emotional needs on their state and seek vicarious fulfillment through its successes" (Lebow 2006). Insofar as a significant section of the population of Russia laments the loss of global respect since 1991, this public penchant serves as ready grist for increasing Putin's base of support. Putin's Arctic strategy, therefore, was inaugurated also to buttress the regime.

Indeed, since coming to power, the Putin regime has developed a multi-tiered, legitimating ideology that some have labeled "Putinism" (Laqueur 2015; Stier 2014). The resulting supportive ideology includes a veritable hodge-podge of concepts and notions, an ideological potpourri that was reinvigorated and reinforced after the 2011–2012 demonstrations.

To be sure, the regime's initial liberal economic bent has given way to an entrenched, state capitalist, *dirigiste* economic philosophy guiding the economy's development (Shevtsova 2015). The Putinist ideology also contains within it a sort of co-dependent reliance upon the Orthodox Church, wherein the state's mission is conflated with the Church's (Coyer 2015), and Russian Orthodoxy becomes a "useful tool" for the state to use to advance its goal of domestic tranquility (Petro 2015). Likewise, the reversion to traditional authoritarian measures with the trappings of democracy (Laqueur 2015) can be justified as saving the public from political instability or chaos.¹⁶ Moreover, the development of a personality cult around Putin serves to "infantilize the public and civic mentality" in order to create a reverent populace that holds Putin's regime beyond challenge (Blank 2015).

An anti-Western narrative, born out of resentment at Russia's lost superpower status and the humiliations of the 1990s, forms another imaging tier of Putinism (Laqueur

2015). Andrei Piontkovsky extends the analysis further, arguing that not only the Russian state, but perhaps the entire *russskii mir*, or "Russian world," is under threat from the West, and as such it becomes Putin's "sacred duty to protect not only the citizens of Russia, but all ethnic Russians and Russian-speaking people throughout the world" (Dekhtiarenko 2015). Defending this *russskii mir* from the decadent culture of the West is another powerful image that drives the regime's biopolitics agenda (Makarychev and Medvedev 2015). Stephen Blank and Younkyoo Kim argue that, rather than anti-Westernism, anti-Americanism is perhaps the most powerful driver in Russian foreign policy today (2015), as the United States attempts to (quoting from Aleksandr Dugin) "force upon other continents its anti-ethnic, anti-traditional, 'babylonian model'" (Barbashin and Thoburn 2014). To be sure, Putinism contains within it the notion that the United States—or the international organizations it instrumentally manipulates—betrayed Russia and is actively denying Moscow its place as a great power (Kotkin 2015; Stoner and McFaul 2015; Russia's National Idea 2015).¹⁷ Even in Russian fiction today, Laruelle finds constructed an "image of Russia surrounded by internal and external enemies," where the West and the United States deny the Russians their great power status "so that they can be more easily ruled" (Laruelle 2012a).

Russian exceptionalism frames yet another leg upon which the Putinist ideological scaffolding stands, one that proves Russia's special mission, provides an "alternative social model" to that found in the West (Kotkin 2015), and glorifies the "great Slav nation," while serving as an historic, Eurasian conduit between East and West (Gaddy and O'Hanlon 2015). According to Mark Urnov, one reason the Kremlin's propaganda may be so successful in trumpeting the exceptionalist line is that such rhetoric fulfills the need that Russians have for "a positive identity, self-assertion and national pride" (Ivanov 2015).¹⁸ A corollary to exceptionalist notions is the regime's consistent emphasis upon instilling national pride and patriotism in the populace; indeed, Dauce et al. note no less than three Russian government programs that exist to inculcate among the citizenry "love for motherland, devotion to fatherland, willingness to serve its interests and defend it, up to and including self-sacrifice" (2015). Petersson, too, demonstrates one other means of ramping up patriotic fervor for the regime, namely, by successfully hosting the Sochi Winter Olympic Games as a form of "great power myth-making" exercise, in full view of the global community (2014).¹⁹ Vitalii Gorokhov similarly suggests that hosting sports "mega-events" contributes to boosting international recognition and the regime's prestige and legitimacy, while also drawing upon past Soviet sporting achievements for added succor (2015).

Besides ushering in a comprehensive drive toward a largely unchecked opening of the Arctic for economic exploitation and development, the Kremlin's Arctic policy is also in

programmatic consonance with these latter ideological notions of “Putinism,” as a nod to Russian exceptionalism, as a paean to Soviet achievements (or “Sovietism,” as described by Lilia Shevtsova), or as an appeal to national pride and patriotism, apparently again for the instrumental purpose of furthering the regime’s stability and popularity. For example, Laruelle convincingly demonstrates that various metanarratives may be found in Russian nationalist discourse today that extol Russia’s uniqueness as a “far north” state (2012b). Furthermore, Josephson’s work on “hero projects” of the Soviet era (1995) reveals the display value of such accomplishments to the Soviet elite, of which the opening of the Soviet Arctic was one major feat (2014); Putin’s appeals to modern-day Arctic exploits appear to echo those from the ancien regime. As well, according to Laruelle, the regime has used its recent efforts in the Arctic as a “nation-branding” exercise, the desired effect of which is to both gain Western recognition for Russia as a “great power” and to connect its development with Russian national sensibilities, sentiments that view the Far North “as a place of refuge” (2014a) that apparently needs to be preserved, renewed, and fortified from foreign threats. Finally, Pavel Baev argues that Putin’s penchant for promoting the Russian Federation as an “Arctic super-power” was undertaken to gain popular support (2013).²⁰

PUTIN’S ARCTIC STRATEGY: REGIME STATUS AUGMENTATION IN PRACTICE

Speaking to the Seliger National Youth Forum in August 2014, President Putin argued for Russia’s exceptional and unique role in the Arctic, stating that the region is “a crucially important region for Russia. Our country is the world’s biggest in terms of size. Even after the collapse of the Soviet Union, which was truly vast, Russia remains the biggest country in terms of territory, but more than seventy percent of our territory is located in the Far North. This is something we need to remember” (Razvitie Arktiki 2014.) Earlier, in a wide-ranging interview on the government’s Arctic policy, Putin had also discussed Russia’s exceptional connection to the Far North, while also perhaps detailing certain status claims to the global audience, stating that the “Arctic is an inalienable part of Russia. So it has been and so it always will be” (Putin: Arktika 2013).

Russia’s modern-day struggle for the Arctic is also noticeably reminiscent of—and often metaphorically joined to—the Soviet drive to conquer the region in the 1930s, as Stalin’s regime exhorted polar explorers and aviators onward, while seeking to build great cities, develop mammoth infrastructure projects, and unlock the vast mineral deposits in the unimaginably austere frozen North—at whatever cost—in order to gain the loyalty of the masses and “hold the Soviet nation together” (McCannon 1998). Putin, when visiting the Franz Josef Land archipelago as prime minister in 2010, exclaimed to

television cameras, “Geopolitically, the deepest interests of the Russian state are connected with the Arctic.... The region needs to be mastered [*osvaivat*], the more actively, the better” (Lukin 2013). Of course by “mastering” the Arctic, Putin’s Arctic strategy envisages a wholesale exploitation of its mineral and hydrocarbon riches, as well as establishing the Northern Sea Route as a potentially major transit route for shipping between Asia and Europe; all this harkens back to the first major opening of the Arctic, that taking place during Stalin’s “revolution from above” in the 1930s.

Moreover, President Putin later made an appeal to national pride and patriotism, proclaiming that “For us, the Arctic opens a new page in our history, which we shall call the epoch of industrial breakthrough, with heady economic and infrastructural development” (Putin: Arktika 2013). And such aspirations appear to be in keeping with Russian attitudes, as a poll conducted by *Komsomolskaia Pravda* in 2007 demonstrated that almost two-thirds of respondents thought that Russia should “make the North attractive for Russian businesses and the general population,” while another 18 percent thought the state should master these territories by taking part in “large-scale state projects, as in the Soviet years” (Arktika—goriachaia 2007).

Beyond such speech acts, the regime has signaled its concerted support for a Soviet-style Arctic presence through other means. In 2010, for example, Prime Minister Putin initiated a new program to eliminate thousands of tons of harmful waste scattered throughout Far Northern territories. Appealing to national pride and drawing a further parallel with earlier Soviet history, Putin proposed a “general cleanup” (*uborka*) of the Arctic, inviting all citizens to take part in the “polar subbotnik” (Vladimir Putin predlozhit 2010). The program began in earnest in 2011 and continues to today, with a variety of local, state, and federal agencies—directed by the Ministry of Natural Resources and Ecology—taking part in cleanup efforts. In 2016 alone, the ministry will spend 1.6 million rubles for operations on the Franz Josef Land archipelago (Rossiiskie vlasti 2016).

Moreover, in 2010 the government began to sponsor seasonal “Arctic Days” fora in various cities throughout the country.²¹ Perhaps the most high profile of these events have taken place in Moscow and St. Petersburg, centered around photo, film, and other cultural and historical exhibitions detailing past and present life in Russia’s Far North; high-ranking government elites attend affiliated lectures and conferences discussing the Arctic’s natural environment, ecological problems affecting the region, and eco-tourism opportunities. Additional “Arctic Days” fora have taken place in Murmansk, the Yamal peninsula, and Yakutsk, among others, with the latest opening in March–April 2016 in the Republic of Sakha (Plan meropriatii, 2016).

Additionally, beginning in 2012, the Russian Geographic Society, the Northern (Arctic) Federal University, and the Federal Service for Hydrometeorology and Environmental

Monitoring began offering educational and research opportunities for young Russian students aboard the “Professor Molchanov” research vessel, dubbed the “Arctic Floating University.” Since that time seven such groups have sailed the waters of the Pechora and Barents Seas, visiting outposts on Novaia Zemlia and the Franz Josef Land archipelago. Focusing on the unique beauty, resources, and opportunities in Russia’s Far North, the goal of the enterprise is to prepare future specialists for research in the region, as well as to increase participants’ appreciation for the Arctic’s role in the country’s future (Konstantin Zaikov 2015).

In 2012 the nation celebrated the silver anniversary of the *Arktika* trip to the North Pole, the first time any nuclear icebreaker—or indeed any surface vessel—had sailed that far north. The following year, Putin signed a decree creating a new professional holiday, Polar Explorer’s Day, which would be observed each year on May 21; on that day in 1937, the Soviet Union set up the world’s first polar research drift station, North Pole-1 (Vladimir Putin Signed 2013). Additionally, state-supported television aired in 2012–2013 no less than three separate, multi-part documentaries on the Arctic; to one extent or another these films, “*Three Captains—The Russian Arctic*,” “*Battle for the Arctic*,” and “*The Arctic—Russia’s Project*,” focus largely on heroic tsarist, Soviet, and Russian triumphs in the Far North.²² Moreover, a variety of reference volumes and historical booklets on the Arctic have appeared in recent years, including *Polar Captains of the Russian and Soviet Fleets* and *The Russian Columbus of the 20th Century: Boris Vilkitskii*.

Hence, just as every Soviet achievement in the frozen north denoted glory for the nation, so, too, every modern-day move toward conquest of new frontiers in the Arctic enhances a powerful myth under construction of great power progress and vigor. In this sense, the regime is drawing upon a deep popular aspiration for Russia to be taken seriously again, leveraging this to enhance domestic support and legitimacy. To be sure, a poll conducted by the state-owned VTsIOM polling agency in early 2014—shortly after the Crimean annexation—demonstrated that 42 percent of Russians would like to see the Russian Federation become “a great power, like the USSR was once,” and a like number want to see Russia as one of the ten to fifteen most influential and developed countries in the world (Most Russians 2014).

Accordingly, on the occasion of the opening of a large scientific-ecological expedition to the Far North, Putin remarked about the importance of the event for the country, claiming “This is a symbolic event for all of Russia, because in the first place, it underscores our growing activity in the Arctic. Our strengths and efforts here are increasing and we will work in many directions” (Vstrecha s uchastnikami, 2012).

The exercise in great power myth construction and status augmentation is also well-served by propagating concerns that threats from outside forces exist, that need to be

checked by Russia’s action. In terms of the Arctic and its resource potential, in 2009 the Kremlin promulgated a presidential decree “On the Russian Federation’s National Security Strategy to 2020” in which its authors claimed, “we cannot rule out the use of force to resolve problems that arise in the competitive battle for resources” (Ukaz ‘O Strategii’ 2009). In 2012, President Putin further drew attention to Russia’s need to protect its northern areas by issuing an executive order that sought to develop “the Navy first and foremost in the Arctic areas and in Russia’s Far East with the aim of protecting the Russian Federation’s strategic interests” (Executive Order 2012). More recently, the president has referred directly to the threats to Russia posed by the United States in the Arctic. Addressing the Seliger Youth Forum in August 2014, Putin said: “The Arctic plays a very important part for us in terms of guaranteeing our security, too. It is regrettably the case that the United States’ attack submarines are concentrated in that area ... and the missiles they carry would reach Moscow within 15–16 minutes.... In short, we have this concentration of interests in the Arctic” (Razvitie Arktiki, 2014).²³

KREMLIN COLLABORATION IN THE ARCTIC

Policy directives and official statements such as these are viewed with increasing suspicion in the West, but it must be noted that Russian activities in the Arctic have long been both conflictual and collaborative, even before 2014. According to several prominent researchers on the region, the Russian approach to the Arctic has never been solely antagonistic, but a dichotomous one, with considerable attention given to regional collaboration, punctuated periodically with “possessive” objectives (Conley and Rohloff 2015; Flikke 2011; Laruelle 2014b; Sergunin and Konyshev 2014a). To be sure, early on the Kremlin concentrated its energies in creating an “Arctic brand” for itself as a state that was energetically focused on cooperation with littoral and non-littoral states in the region (Laruelle 2014c). However, at times “possessive” ambitions have come to the fore.

Still, a significant body of evidence exists that demonstrates Russia’s earlier commitment to a collaborative agenda in the Arctic. Indeed, while seen by some as an attempt to seize additional territory beyond the 200-mile exclusive economic zone, Russia’s initial claims submission to the United Nations Commission on the Limitation of the Continental Shelf in 2001 actually was evidence that the country was committed to following the established international legal process for settling continental shelf disputes. Furthermore, Russia has always argued that territorial conflicts should be resolved according to international legal principles, particularly in accordance with the UN’s Convention on the Law of the Sea and the 2008 Ilulissat Declaration (Sergunin and Konyshev 2014a).

Again, Russia has been an active member of the consensus-driven Arctic Council (AC) and the Barents Euro-Arctic Council (BEAC), while various Russian regional governments have been active in “paradiplomacy” efforts with their counterparts in neighboring states (Joenniemi and Sergunin 2014a). In the BEAC’s Regional Working Group on the Environment, for example, Russian participation was vitally important in exploring issues of surface and drinking water contamination, biodiversity, and raising public awareness and environmental consciousness in the Finnish, Norwegian, and Russian border areas (RWGE Annual Report 2013). Additional working groups dealt with issues in areas as diverse as education, health, investment and economic cooperation, energy, transport and logistics, and the rights of indigenous peoples.

In addition, in 2010 Russia and Norway amicably settled their disagreements over maritime delimitation in the Barents Sea, despite the fact that the agreement was relatively unpopular in Russia (Baev 2013). Moreover, in 2011 Russia and other Arctic states promulgated the Aeronautical and Maritime Arctic Search and Rescue agreement, the first legally binding AC-negotiated agreement. This was followed in early 2013 by the Arctic Council agreement on Cooperation on Marine Oil Pollution Preparedness and Response in the Arctic.

At each of these seminal junctures, Russian policymakers have reiterated Russia’s desire for greater cooperation in the Arctic, hoping that favorable results in the northern theater will reaffirm and encourage prospects in other arenas (Staalesen 2010). Even as recently as October 2013, Putin said in answer to a question concerning changes that the warming Arctic has for Russia’s security and economic developments in the region, “Of course, the Northern Fleet will continue to carry out its military duties. However, we very much count on all that has happened in recent times will take us away from a Cold War, away from open confrontation with the West” (Putin: *Arktika* 2013).

Why have Russia’s actions in, and rhetoric regarding the Arctic become more confrontational in the 2014–2015 period? Of course, the events in late 2011 in Moscow, along with Putin’s cynical return to the presidency in 2012, had some role to play in an evolving Russian narrative on the Far North. However, much of what happened—in terms of stepped-up military activities and argumentative policy statements—apparently has more to do with the events in Ukraine, the sanctions regime, and subsequent developments. In addition, why have Russian policymakers apparently put less emphasis upon the Arctic since the second half of 2015? These questions will be considered in the following sections.

CONFLICT IN THE ARCTIC AFTER UKRAINE

The events in Ukraine in late 2013 and early 2014 apparently triggered a further reassessment of Russian policy

toward the West, NATO, and the United States, a policy that had been growing ever more distant from Putin’s first-term approach of “Western engagement” and focusing more on “pragmatic nationalist” goals of multipolar competition, national prestige, and recognition of Russia’s great power interests (Donaldson et al. 2014). From the Kremlin’s perspective, the ouster of Yanukovych on the night of February 21, 2014—on the heels of an agreement signed between Yanukovych and opposition forces, with the backing of Western and Russian governments—was an opportunistic, treacherous blow to Russia’s national interests, apparently secured in order to put in place a pro-Western, Russophobic government in Kiev. To the Kremlin, this demonstrated the West’s continuing desire to expand its influence eastward.

According to this narrative, Russia’s leadership had made it increasingly clear in recent years that no additional members of the Commonwealth of Independent States should become candidates for NATO membership. And now, even after the Kremlin demonstrated the lengths to which it would go to forestall “near abroad” countries’ entry into NATO, with the defeat of Georgia in the August 2008 war, the West was again disrespecting Russia’s status as well as its geopolitical interests in the very heart of Russia’s birthplace, Kievan Rus. Also motivating a reassessment was a belief that the West was promoting another “color revolution,”²⁴ one whose demonstration effect might engulf elite circles in Russia who had only recently avoided a Western-inspired regime change in 2011 (Stoner and McFaul 2015).

Such developments demanded a rejoinder, and not only along Russia’s western border, the area most proximate to the transformative events taking place in Ukraine. To be sure, Russia’s leaders responded as they have in the Arctic for at least two additional reasons. For one, many Russian experts believed that at least since 2008, NATO has been markedly intensifying its own activities in the Arctic,²⁵ and they were convinced that the Western alliance would continue penetrating the region (Sergunin and Konyshev 2014a), an area that—at least until climate change began—had been Russia’s last refuge.²⁶ Some believe the West views the Arctic as a “key to the restoration of a former geopolitical balance,” and for that reason the United States and the NATO powers are fixated upon the region (Polunin 2015). Second, much of Russia’s sea-based nuclear deterrent is located in the Arctic realm, and hence, a northern response to the West should have been anticipated.

With the “unacceptable” ouster of Yanukovych, the Kremlin’s perception of the Western threat was amplified, compelling the Russian leadership to take a much stronger approach to the West not only in Ukraine, but elsewhere, too. The introduction of the sanctions regime after the annexation of Crimea and the downing of MH-17 was another added blow to status-conscious Russia, an action that only further cemented the Kremlin’s more aggressive stance in the Arctic. From the beginning, the sanctions

targeted President Putin's network of political and economic supporters, the hope being that severe economic pain would cause the elite class to pressure Putin to back down or remove Putin altogether (Gaddy 2015). As well—and most important for our purposes here—the sanctions adversely affected Russia's Arctic enterprise, the promised future of Russia's hydrocarbon-driven economy, by banning Western companies from providing investment funds, equipment, and technology for Arctic oil and gas exploitation.

The Kremlin responded to the Western sanctions regime in three ways. For one, they imposed counter-sanctions against the United States, the European Union, Norway, Canada, and Australia. Second, Russia began a full-court press to find alternative investment partners for its Arctic development projects, including specific successful overtures to both China and India. Last, responding to the West's damaging sanctions "provocation," which seriously constricted existing Arctic development plans, the Kremlin ramped up its military presence in the northern reaches of Russia.²⁷

Still, the more definitive motivation for Russia's intensified activity in the North was the greater perception of threat from the West in the wake of the Ukraine conflict, as well as the mistrust and fear that resulted from the West's unwillingness to honor Russia's status (Tsygankov 2014). The potential inclusion of Ukraine in NATO was a threat not only along Russia's southwestern border, but along its entire perimeter. To be sure, Russia has long been concerned with the potential for NATO—or a sub-group of countries within the military alliance—to expand activities in the Arctic. For example, the Kremlin reacted strongly to plans spearheaded by the United Kingdom in 2011 to create a nine-member "mini-NATO" in northern Europe made up of the five Nordic states and the three Baltic countries (Russia Opposes 2011). As such, Russian scholars would rather point to recent Western actions in the Arctic as the cause of the stepped-up Russian rearmament and modernization program there.²⁸ As one scholar at the Institute of U.S. and Canada Studies remarked,

As far as the security of Russia's Arctic shelf is concerned, the region has been largely unprotected in military terms: there were no tracking systems, radars, ground troops or naval forces. In the meantime, pretty close to it is the U.S. bastion in Alaska, with its intelligence means, missile defense systems and naval forces. Apart from that, the Scandinavian countries have created their own military bloc inside NATO to protect their interests in the near-Arctic zone. Anti-Russian exercises have been held regularly there. Therefore, the measures being taken to enhance the security of Russia's Arctic shelf are Russia's proportionate response to Western challenges (Zamyatina, 2014).

Thus, because of Yanukovych's ouster, the scale of Russia's activities in the region dramatically increased. Indeed, within days of completing the annexation of

Crimea in March 2014, the Russian Security Council met to abrogate various Russian-Ukrainian military agreements over the Black Sea Fleet and Crimea; at the same meeting, the council also decided to strengthen "Russia's position in the Arctic region," unofficially linking the security situation in Crimea with that on Russia's northern reaches (Meeting 2014). At a meeting of the same body in April, Putin spoke of additional military infrastructure improvements being made in the region due to increasing interest by Western states in the Arctic (Putin na zasedanii 2014).²⁹

Such improvements across the length and breadth of the Arctic concerned NATO greatly, as Russia began the renovation of thirteen Soviet-era airfields, the construction of ten radar posts, ten search-and-rescue bases, and the creation of a firing range for pilot training. In addition, two motorized infantry brigades, each with six thousand soldiers, were planned for Arctic locales; the first would be stationed near Murmansk, while the second would be based on the Yamal peninsula, near sensitive oil and gas facilities (Conley and Rohloff 2015; Majumdar 2014). At the same time, Russian authorities claimed these infrastructural and force improvements were warranted, given the country's extensive plans to develop vast hydrocarbon deposits in the region as well as the Northern Sea Route; this is especially so, given the degeneration in infrastructure and redeployments that took place following the collapse of the Soviet Union.³⁰

President Putin responded in late 2014 to additional Western concerns over the "Vostok-2014 exercises," the largest Russian military maneuvers since the end of the Soviet era. Discussing the September exercises in the Far East and Arctic, Putin mentioned at a meeting of the Defense Ministry Board that they were a response to U.S. plans to build a missile defense system and NATO's stepped-up activities in Eastern Europe. At the same meeting, Putin discussed the creation of a new Joint Strategic Command of the North, based on the Northern Fleet, historically Russia's largest fleet (Expanded Meeting 2014). Within a month, Chief of Staff General Valerii Gerasimov declared that in response to Western military activities, special focus would be given to strengthening Russia's military forces in 2015 not only in the Crimea and Kaliningrad oblast, but also in the Arctic (Rossiia v 2015, 2015).

Additional examples of the Russian leadership reacting to NATO activities in the region include the March 16, 2015, five-day snap military exercises, which included 80,000 troops, 65 warships, 220 aircraft, and fifteen submarines, in addition to putting the Northern Fleet on full combat readiness (Grove 2015). The maneuvers were undertaken ostensibly in response to the "Joint Viking" military exercise launched by Norway the previous week, reportedly the largest military exercise on NATO's northern flank since 1967.

Russia also responded to NATO's "Arctic Challenge Exercise" in late May 2015. Here, six NATO member states, along with Sweden, Finland, and Switzerland, launched the exercises in the north of Norway, with the involvement of

approximately 4,000 troops and 115 fighter jets. Russia responded the same day “Arctic Challenge” began, putting three times as many soldiers and 250 aircraft into the field in the northern Komi Republic and Russia’s Central Military District (Conley and Rohloff 2015; Russia Begins 2015).

In terms of shifts in military doctrine, over the summer of 2015 Russia’s Security Council was reportedly revising its 2014 military doctrine, which now mentions NATO as a primary threat to Russia’s security interests. The impetus for the more recent revision appears to have been the Obama administration’s 2015 national security document and a follow-up Pentagon national military strategy document, in which Russia’s aggression, belligerence, and coercion are listed as particular problems in securing the peace in Central and Eastern Europe (National Security Strategy 2015). According to Sergei Rogov, director of the Institute of U.S. and Canada Studies, these new U.S. policies provide “doctrinal support for the United States’ new Cold War against Russia,” and Russia’s leaders will be taking this into consideration as they revise Russia’s military doctrine, leading to a “sharp aggravation of Russian–U.S. relations [that] will certainly be reflected in it” (Zamyatina 2015). As such, the Marine Doctrine published in late July emphasized as major foci strengthening Russia’s sea power in both the Arctic and the Atlantic Oceans; according to Deputy Prime Minister Rogozin, “We emphasize [these areas] because NATO has been developing actively of late and coming closer to our borders, and Russia is of course responding to these developments” (Russian Federation 2015).

Tensions continued to mount throughout the summer as the most recent exercises by NATO forces in August and September 2015 again provoked a strong Russian rebuke. Responding to both NATO’s first deployment of its newly created Very High Readiness Joint Task Force and its “Immediate Response 2015” exercises, Ivan Soltanovskii, the director of the Russian Foreign Ministry’s European Cooperation Department, stated, “We have a negative attitude to the mounting military activity of NATO in the areas bordering our country and are observing a growth in the number and the scope of exercises which are being held under the NATO aegis.... The enhancement of this military presence and infrastructure near our borders has an obvious provocative nature” (Diplomat: Rise 2015).

In addition to these developments, the tarnished relationship between Russia and the West in the Arctic in both the security and economic realms poisons perceptions in other arenas, with each rhetorical flourish or action taken by one side eliciting a yet more ruinous response from the other. For example, some Russian experts now believe that the United States will use its chairmanship of the Arctic Council in 2015–2017 in order to create conflict in the body, conflict that will be injurious to Russia’s status, more generally, and its interests in the AC, more specifically;³¹ others believe Russia’s renewed claims before the UN Commission on the Limitation of the Continental Shelf (CLCS) will not get a

fair hearing,³² due to the current political situation over Ukraine (Alexandrova 2015; Bovt 2015).³³

Besides ramping up military pressures in the Far North, the Russian regime also signaled its displeasure with the West by appointing a fervent nationalist to head the newly formed Arctic Commission. In this capacity, Dmitrii Rogozin, a longtime representative of the national patriotic movement in Russia,³⁴ could be counted on by the regime to make incendiary, provocative comments sure to make headlines both at home and abroad; as such, Rogozin—not known to be an exceptionally effective manager or major decision-maker on Arctic affairs³⁵—was nonetheless consequential in drawing attention to the regime’s more assertive approach to Arctic matters. In that regard, then, Rogozin’s nationalist bravado served to support Putinist appeals to national pride and patriotism in the Far North, but also to signal to the West Russia’s irritation with the West’s unwillingness to recognize and honor its status there.

Rogozin had been increasing his involvement in Arctic issues since 2012; for example, at a Naval Collegium meeting that year, Rogozin argued vociferously for the regime to set achievable goals for securing Russia’s national interests in the Arctic, arguing “If we don’t do that, we will lose the battle for resources, which means we’ll also lose in a big battle for the right to have sovereignty and independence.”³⁶ A few months later, the deputy prime minister expanded on this theme, expressing his concerns that developing the Arctic shelf will certainly lead to conflicts of interest between Arctic and non-Arctic states that sought its resources. Ominously, Rogozin added that “It is possible this conflict will exceed the diplomatic limits.... It is also quite possible that Russian oil and gas production facilities may become targets of secret acts of sabotage by rival countries.”³⁷ To be sure, Rogozin perceives the West as both coveting the economic assets of Russia’s Arctic and at the same time wanting to check Russia’s developmental advances there, seeing that as something that would only strengthen the Russian state.³⁸

However, with his elevation to head the newly created State Commission for Arctic Development in February 2015, Rogozin now became officially the principal interlocutor on all political, economic, and military questions concerning Russia’s plans in the Arctic.³⁹ Within a week of the Arctic Commission’s initial meeting, the deputy prime minister caustically tied together the events in Ukraine in 2014 with the government’s growing activities in the Arctic, saying, “Last year, we had the historical reunification of Sevastopol and the Crimea. This year, we present a new view and new powerful stress on the development of the Arctic. Basically, it is all about the same thing” (Staalesen 2015b). Similarly corrosive comments were made by Rogozin at the opening of a new Arctic drift station, North Pole—2015, at which the Commission chair mentioned a number of problems in the Arctic that even Soviet planners had not been able to resolve, stating, “But

now the accent should be put on the fact that we should go to the Arctic now and forever and make it our own.”

During the same visit, Rogozin's trip to the North Pole by way of Spitsbergen caused a diplomatic spat of sorts with the Norwegian government.⁴⁰ Since Rogozin had been placed on a list of sanctioned Russian government officials, Norway claimed that his brief visit to the island on his way northward was prohibited, despite the fact that the 1920 Treaty provides visa-free access to Russians. The Norwegian government summoned the Russian ambassador for consultations, arguing the visa-free regime was being reevaluated. Having returned to Russia, Rogozin responded that the Norwegian government was envious that “we went swimming at the north Pole,” and compared Norwegian diplomats to “ostriches, hiding their heads in the snow.” He later tweeted that “The Arctic is a Russian Mecca” (Dmitrii Rogozin *probralsia* 2015; Rogozin *sraivil Norvegiu* 2015).⁴¹ Thus, having the nationalist hardliner serve as the public face of Russia's Arctic strategy allows the regime to not only focus national pride and patriotism on such efforts, but also to underscore the regime's dismay, in attempts to have its status acknowledged and respected by the West.

CONCLUSIONS

Such statements and actions from the newly appointed principal front man of Russia's Arctic strategy will undoubtedly prove consequential for how Russia conducts itself in the region and how its relationship with Western countries over Arctic matters develops. Of course, the sanctions regime, focused as it is on severely restricting Russia's freedom of maneuver in the Arctic, also works against a more cooperative relationship with the West. Perhaps most important, however, is the Kremlin's increased perception of threat emanating from the West—and the United States most especially—in the wake of the Ukrainian events. As this analysis demonstrates, in the eyes of those governing Russia, this threat is not localized only on the western approaches to Russia, but is surely also present in the extreme North—Russia's formerly sole impregnable border, but now, due to climate change, becoming ever more vulnerable. Each of these factors, too, is reflective of the regime's renewed focus on national pride and patriotism and its disappointment and disenchantment with Western policies that disregard Russia's status and interests.

At the same time, there appears to be some ongoing progress in fashioning a more constructive relationship between Russia and its Arctic neighbors. For example, in the last two years Russia has acceded to two sets of rules governing polar shipping. The most recent of these, the Polar Code issued by the International Maritime Organization in May 2015, restricts methods by which ships traversing the Arctic region can dispose of wastes. Another example of successful cooperation in the region is the July 2015 signing of the ban on unregulated

fishing in the central Arctic's “donut hole”—an area the size of the Mediterranean Sea—by the five Arctic littoral states, Russia included. Last, Russia's August 2015 revised submission of claims to an additional 1.2 million square miles of the Arctic to the UN Commission on the Limitation of the Continental Shelf demonstrates the country's commitment to pursuing such claims in accordance with the only process recognized as legitimate under international law; as such, submitting such claims to the body can be considered neither as “neo-imperial,” nor as an attempt at “nationalization,” as some critics have contended (McCain 2015). Thus, while the last several years have been characterized by greater conflict in the region, opportunities for cooperation have not been spurned.

Still, since the latter half of 2015, it appears the Kremlin's approach to the Far North has moderated somewhat, with Arctic matters becoming more peripheral than before, and cooperative overtures—rather than caustic remarks—more apparent than in previous years. Indeed, Russia's new National Security Strategy mentions the Arctic only twice, less prominently than before, and argues for “equal and mutually beneficial international cooperation” in the region.⁴²

The regime may have calculated that the benefits accruing from a more confrontational approach pale in comparison to the costs, particularly in the current energy environment. With hydrocarbon prices at current levels, the vast majority of Arctic production remains unprofitable. Both private and public Russian oil and gas companies are having to radically reduce their capital investment plans. Even if the price of oil were to increase significantly, Western sanctions leave Russian companies without the needed technologies and know-how to develop projects in this inhospitable, challenging environment (Ampilov 2014). As well, the sanctions regime robs the energy sector of Western investment, while the Russian government is only able to fund the most strategically important projects due to severe budget shortfalls.⁴³ In addition, international interest in the Northern Sea Route has plummeted since 2014, with gross tonnage transits falling by almost 80 percent over the prior year. Since then, further declines have been noted, with safety concerns, ecological risks, and costs being cited as causes.⁴⁴

Consequently, given all of these risks, it is not assured that Russia's Arctic strategy will be an economic windfall for Kremlin coffers.⁴⁵ The political benefits accruing to the regime from “mastering” the Arctic regions may also be in doubt, as the perceived accomplishments depend in no small measure upon the return on investment. If the Arctic strategy comes to naught, it may actually serve to undercut the current regime's legitimacy further, rather than serve as an emblem of Russian exceptionalism and achievement as well as a wellspring of national pride.

In addition, Russia's attempt to augment its status via a multi-faceted Arctic initiative may bring some political

benefit vis-à-vis international rivals elsewhere, but relying on isolationist rhetoric and military posturing in the region may result in Russia's never having the opportunity to effectively develop its Arctic holdings (Laruelle 2014a). Thus, certain economic, political, and international constraints may outweigh the importance of the Arctic as a tool for either status augmentation or domestic legitimacy.

NOTES

1. There are five littoral states to the Arctic Ocean: the United States, Canada, Denmark, Norway, and the Russian Federation. The "Arctic 5," along with Finland, Sweden, and Iceland, countries that lie within the Arctic Circle, but do not have a littoral presence on the Arctic Ocean, constitute a broader category of countries known as Arctic states. A variety of other, non-Arctic countries have demonstrated increasing interest in the region, including South Korea, Japan, China, and India. It is interesting to note that China considers itself a "near Arctic state."
2. The latter effort has become even more important since the demonstrations in Moscow, St. Petersburg, and other large cities in 2011–2012.
3. Exploration and extraction of oil and gas deposits in Russia's Arctic regions were inherently risky endeavors in the past due to the poor mapping of potential deposit sites (Long et al. 2008), the significant uncertainties concerning actual investment levels in Arctic production, certain technological problems and operational risks (Emmerson 2012), and the complexity and cost of resource extraction (Keil 2013).
4. In summer 2012, Arctic Sea ice was at a record low level (Holland 2014).
5. Lukin notes that 100 percent of Russia's indigenous diamonds (as well as 40 percent of its gold reserves) are located in the Russian Arctic (2013, 9).
6. Marlene Laruelle notes that the overwhelming majority of the world's reserves of platinum, nickel, and cobalt, and over 60 percent of copper reserves, are to be found in the Arctic, especially in Russia and Canada, while Russia's Arctic contains the world's second largest rare earth deposits, after China's (2014a, 152, 154).
7. It is important to note that many of the earliest assessments of the Arctic's vast "undiscovered" hydrocarbon deposits turned out to be erroneous; both Gazprom and Rosneft have been forced recently to scale back their earlier investment plans accordingly (Kennedy 2015).
8. Additional areas of high likelihood of fossil fuel resource potential are located immediately north of the Alaskan/Canadian coastline (Beaufort Sea), and to the west and east of Greenland.
9. In 2014 Russia produced 23 trillion cubic feet of gas and 10.7 million barrels of oil per day (Clemente 2015).
10. In 2011 the Arctic contributed 15 percent to Russia's GDP and accounted for 25 percent of its exports (Lukin 2013). In 2012 it contributed to 11 percent of Russia's GDP, with 22 percent of its export earnings (Josephson 2014, 350).
11. PricewaterhouseCoopers maintains that the Russian Federation is responsible for discovering 43 of the 61 largest natural gas and oil fields in the Arctic Circle to date (Clemente 2015).
12. Of course, such future capital expenditure plans by Rosneft, as well as those of other major oil and gas producers like Gazprom, Novatek, and Lukoil, are highly dependent upon the future price of oil and gas, the course of Western sanctions, and emerging energy industry dynamics.
13. These include the Transport Strategy to 2030, the Strategy for Developing the Arctic Zone to 2020, and the Strategy for Developing Port Infrastructure to 2030.
14. By comparison, the United States has only two icebreakers, with only one actually operational at any one time.
15. Discussing the importance of honor to domestic political support, Swart avers that honor was "central to the authority of the prince and the polity" (2016).
16. Laruelle demonstrates that among other values espoused by a number of independent Russian patriotic youth clubs, the need for order and stability was one value that is also espoused by Kremlin ideologists (Laruelle 2015a).
17. Recent polls indicate anti-American and anti-Western sentiments are on the rise among Russians; in May 2015 a Levada Center poll revealed that 60 percent of the population believe the United States is a serious threat to Russia, and in August 2015 a VTsIOM poll demonstrated that 70 percent of Russians harbored negative sentiments about America (Coyer 2015; Majority of Russians Say 2015).
18. A recent poll conducted by the Levada Center demonstrates that 40 percent of those polled agree that Russians are a "special people." In 2000, only a third agreed with the statement (Kirby 2015).
19. Russia's winning bid for the 2018 FIFA World Cup is a further employment of this approach.
20. In his book *The Conquest of the Russian Arctic*, Paul Josephson concurs that gaining superpower status and legitimacy were important motivating factors for elites' refocusing their attention on the Arctic (2014, 356).
21. Among others, sponsors routinely include the Ministry of Natural Resources and Ecology, the Federation Council, the Russian Academy of Sciences, and the Russian Geographic Society.
22. Each of these can be viewed on YouTube.
23. It is perhaps possible that the regime's efforts at status augmentation and great power myth-making—in the Arctic and elsewhere—are having an effect. Indeed, according to a recent Levada Center poll, roughly two-thirds of Russians see their country today as a great power, a higher percentage than at any time since 1999 (Pozitsii Rossii 2015).
24. Claims made by Victoria Nuland, the assistant secretary of state for European and Eurasian affairs, in a December 2013 speech concerning U.S. financial support for democratic change in Ukraine, only heightened such fears.
25. Speaking at a Marine Board meeting in late 2012, Dmitrii Rogozin, deputy prime minister in charge of the defense industry and former envoy to NATO in 2008–2011, stated that at nearly every alliance meeting, the subject of the Arctic and its changing environment would be discussed. Plans were discussed by NATO members to send ships to the vicinity of Russia's Northern Sea Route, allegedly to assist with civil navigation. Instead, Rogozin assumed that, "Clearly, an attempt to undermine international regulations that provide for cooperation and security in the Arctic Zone is behind [that rhetoric]" (Battle for, 2012).
26. Before climate change made the northern border more vulnerable, Russia did not have to fear foreign encroachment in the High North as much as it had to on its western, southern, and eastern borders, where Moscow faced the triple threat of NATO advancement, Islamic terrorism, and Chinese migration.
27. According to a recent report in *The Wall Street Journal*, U.S. sanctions on OAO Novatek, Russia's largest independent producer of natural gas, have seriously undermined the enormous \$27 billion Yamal gas project in the Arctic (Marson and Williams 2015).
28. In all, Russia plans to spend twenty trillion rubles on new weapons procurement from 2011 to 2020 (Isachenkov 2015).
29. However, at the same meeting Putin was also careful to point out that "we are interested in stable development of the region, based on cooperation and respect for international rights" (Putin na zasedanii 2014).
30. Even some Western defense analysts would agree that Russia's renewed emphasis on the Arctic is less a new offensive than a response to NATO and a desire to protect economic interests in the region (Sergunin and Konyshchev 2015). At least one U.S. military official has also apparently downplayed Russia's military activities in

the region; commenting a few days prior to the beginning of NATO's "Arctic Challenge Exercise" in May 2015, U.S. Coast Guard Admiral Robert J. Papp Jr. said, concerning Russian activities in the Arctic, "Everything we have seen them doing so far is lawful, considered, and deliberative. So we'll just continue monitoring it and not overreact to it" (New Security 2015).

31. Statements by Senator John McCain arguing that the United States should use its chairmanship of the AC as an opportunity to "make recognition of Mr. Putin's hegemonic ambitions a top priority" do not help moderate such beliefs (McCain 2015).
 32. For proof, skeptics may point to statements made by Representative Ed Royce, the chairman of the House Committee on Foreign Affairs, who remarked concerning Russia's permissible, renewed application before the UN's CLCS for claims extending beyond its exclusive economic zone, "Russia has been aggressively pushing its claims to the Arctic, especially the resource-rich continental shelf.... The U.S. and others bordering the Arctic must maintain a united front against Moscow's aggressive ambitions toward this vital region" (Lossan 2015).
 33. As the deputy director of the Marine Geology Division at Russian Academy of Sciences' Oceanology Institute, Professor Leopold Lobkovsky, stated, "Russia's bid puts winds into the sails of Denmark and Canada's bids.... If this model is passed, the ridge can be shared among the three countries.... Unfortunately, this is not happening, they do not want to interact with us" (Russian Arctic Shelf 2015).
 34. Rogozin was appointed deputy prime minister in charge of the defense industry in December 2011, and has been a hawkish supporter of the defense industry since. Before his elevation, Rogozin had been an ardent supporter of ethnic Russians living in former Soviet republics; indeed, after the collapse of the Soviet Union, Rogozin was an early supporter of the Congress of Russian Communities, a nationalist political grouping that desired to leverage state support for the defense of Russian minorities now living abroad, in addition to revising Russian borders and integrating Russian-majority areas of neighboring states into a greater union.
- Elected to the State Duma in 1997, he also occupied several high-profile positions in foreign affairs committees, effectively using such posts to caustically defend Russia's interests. Rogozin headed first the Duma's committee in charge of relations with the Parliamentary Assembly to the Council of Europe, later chairing a committee charged with responsibility for the Kaliningrad region and EU expansion.
- In 2003, Rogozin forged the "Rodina" or "Motherland" party, a nationalist-patriotic alternative to the CPSU, and captured ten percent of the vote in the 2004 parliamentary elections; the party was banned from taking part in the 2005 Moscow city elections, due to its rabid anti-immigrant campaign message, and was later disbanded by the Kremlin in 2006, as some considered the movement a political threat (Laruelle 2015b). However, President Putin later rewarded Rogozin with an appointment as Russia's ambassador to NATO in 2007, perhaps valuing him for his ability to champion—not always very diplomatically—the country's security interests. Indeed, Rogozin's charge at this time included defending Russia's position during the 2008 war in the Caucasus, objecting to missile defense plans in Eastern Europe, and opposing NATO expansion eastward.- 35. The author wishes to thank several reviewers for these observations.
- 36. "Battle for Arctic Key for Russia's Sovereignty—Rogozin," *Russia Today*, December 4, 2012.
- 37. "Rogozin: Active Development of Arctic Shelf to Cause Conflict of Interest, Sabotage," *Interfax*, June 28, 2013.
- 38. In late 2013, speaking about NATO's interest in the Arctic at a Naval Collegium, Rogozin stated, "Naturally, military activity every time is

really just a cloak for economic ambitions. ... In 2009–2010 in Brussels, Washington, Ottawa, and other capitals, there was an active discussion of plans to build up military activities in the Arctic region" ("Rogozin ob osvoenii Arktiki" 2013). The following year, Rogozin argued that the sale of Alaska was a "betrayal of Russian power status," and that Russia maintained the "right to reclaim our lost colonies" (Pettersen 2015).

39. The commission's purpose is to evaluate the resource base of the region, develop an investment program for the exploitation of these resources, and develop policies for the Arctic in the socio-economic, political, and military realms (Rogozin vozglavil 2015). According to Lukin, the origins of the commission grew out of a meeting of the Expert Council on the Arctic and Antarctic in 2012, chaired by A.N. Chilingarov (Lukin 2013, 138). The government began intensive discussions regarding the commission's creation as early as July 2014 (Dmitrii Rogozin, 2015).
40. According to the 1920 Treaty of Spitsbergen, Norway has sovereign control over the island and the other isles making up the Svalbard archipelago. Although the treaty assigns sovereignty to Norway, contracting parties to the agreement enjoy equal rights—subject to local law—to engage in maritime, mining, and industrial practices on or about the islands making up the archipelago.
41. In summer 2015 Rogozin made headlines again, declaring at the annual Tekhnoprom International Forum—which he both founded and chairs—that the next year's forum would concentrate on the problems of mastering the Arctic region, saying that "We plan to make our people rejoice, and our adversaries upset, with the construction of a few new exemplars of military technology—first of all the creation of new aviation complexes, new rocket forces, and a powerful fleet" (Bolotin 2015).
42. "O Strategii Natsional'noi Bezopasnosti Rossiiskoi Federatsii," December 31, 2015.
43. Although the government's "pivot to Asia" was designed in part to generate greater Chinese interest—and more recently the Russian legislature has made it easier for such foreign investors to own or control more of the production of new hydrocarbon discoveries—to date, Chinese interest has not met expectations.
44. It is important to note, though, that while international interest has fallen, domestic usage has increased year on year, with cargo turnover increasing by 37 percent between 2014 and 2015 (Pettersen 2016).
45. Indeed, there is increasing evidence that senior officials in the Russian government are re-evaluating the worth of extensive new hydrocarbon projects in the country's frontiers, believing Russia's dependency on oil and gas prices to be a major threat to its national security; Prime Minister Dmitrii Medvedev, former Chief of Staff Sergei Ivanov, and Security Council Secretary Nikolai Patrushev have recently all separately voiced such concerns.

ORCID

Thomas E. Rotnem  <http://orcid.org/0000-0002-0049-0279>

REFERENCES

- Alexandrova, Liudmila. 2015. "Russia Would Like to See Border of Its Arctic Shelf Expanded." *TASS*, August 5, at <http://tass.ru/en/opinions/812810>, accessed August 7, 2015.
- Ampilov, Yurii. 2014. "Osvoenie shel'fa Arktiki i Dal'nego Vostoka: Problemy i perspektivi" (The Development of the Arctic Shelf and the Far East: Problems and Perspectives). *Offshore* (Russia) 4, no. 6: 8–15.

- "Arctic Resources Central to Russia's Energy Security—Medvedev." 2008. *Sputnik News*, September 17, at <http://sputniknews.com/russia/20080917/116894260.html>, accessed December 14, 2014.
- "Arktika—goriachaia tochka XXI veka" (The Arctic: The 21st Century Hotspot). 2007. *Komsomol'skaia pravda*, April 23, at www.kp.ru/daily/23892/66464, accessed May 14, 2015.
- Baev, Pavel. 2013. "Russia's Arctic Ambitions and Anxieties." *Current History* 112: 265–70.
- Barbashin, Anton, and Hannah Thoburn. 2004. "Putin's Brain: Alexander Dugin and the Philosophy behind Putin's Invasion of Crimea." *Foreign Affairs*, March 13, at <https://www.foreignaffairs.com/articles/russia-fsu/2014-03-31/putins-brain>, accessed May 27, 2015.
- "Battle for Arctic Key for Russia's Sovereignty—Rogozin" 2012. *RT*, December 4, at www.rt.com/politics/arctic-sovereignty-rogozin-resources-250/, accessed June 10, 2015.
- "Bering Strait Shipping Route to Slash Voyage Times between Asia and Europe." 2013. *Moscow Times*, August 22, at www.themoscowtimes.com/business/article/bering-strait-shipping-route-to-slash-voyage-times-between-asia-and-europe/484859.html, accessed July 13, 2015.
- Bird, Kenneth, et al. 2008. "Circum-Arctic Resource Appraisal: Estimates of Undiscovered Oil and Gas North of the Arctic Circle." United States Geological Survey, Fact Sheet 2008/3049.
- Blank, Stephen. 2015. "I, Putin. The Russian Cult of Personality." *The Interpreter*, May 26, at www.interpretermag.com/i-putin/, accessed July 6, 2015.
- Blank, Stephen, and Younkyoo Kim. 2015. "Russia and Latin America: The New Frontier for Geopolitics, Arms Sales, and Energy." *Problems of Post-Communism* 62, no. 3:159–73.
- Bolotin, Igor. 2015. "Dmitrii Rogozin gotovit Arkticheskii forum" (Dmitrii Rogozin Prepares the Arctic Forum). *Nezavisimaia gazeta*, June 5, at www.ng.ru/regions/2015-06-05/6_novosib.html, accessed August 16, 2015.
- Bovt, Georgii. 2015. "Rogozin razmorozil Arktiku: kratkoe prebyvanie Rogozina na Shpitsbergene obernulos' bol'shim skandalom" (Rogozin Unfreezes the Arctic: Rogozin's Short Visit to Spitsbergen Turns into a Big Scandal). *gazeta.ru*, April 20, www.gazeta.ru/politics/2015/04/20_a_6647685.shtml, accessed August 14, 2015.
- Bryanski, Gleb. 2015. "Russia's Putin Calls for Stalin-style 'Leap Forward.'" *Reuters*, August 30, www.reuters.com/article/2012/08/31/us-russia-putin-stalin-idUSBRE87U16420120831, accessed September 22, 2015.
- Carvalho, Benjamin de, and Iver B. Neumann, eds. 2014. *Small State Status Seeking: Norway's Quest for International Standing*. Abingdon: Routledge.
- Chehade, Georges, Ekaterina Kozinchenko, Dmitry Mordovenko, and Douwe Tideman. 2015. "Capital Projects in the Russian Oil and Gas Industry: Four Steps to Greater Efficiency." *strategy&*, March 27, www.strategyand.pwc.com/global/home/what-we-think/reports-white-papers/article-display/capital-projects-oil-gas-russia, accessed June 2, 2015.
- Clemente, Jude. 2015. "How Much Energy Does Russia Have Anyways?" *Forbes*, March 25, at www.forbes.com/sites/judeclemente/2015/03/25/how-much-energy-does-russia-have-anyways/, accessed May 1, 2015.
- Clunan, Anne L. 2014. "Historical Aspirations and the Domestic Politics of Russia's Pursuit of International Status." *Communist and Post-Communist Studies*, 47, 281–90.
- Conley, Heather A. and Caroline Rohloff. 2015. *The New Ice Curtain: Russia's Strategic Reach to the Arctic*. Washington, DC: Center for Strategic and International Studies.
- Coyer, Paul. 2015. "(Un)Holy Alliance: Vladimir Putin, The Russian Orthodox Church and Russian Exceptionalism." *Forbes*, May 21, at www.forbes.com/sites/paulcoyer/2015/05/21/unholy-alliance-vladimir-putin-and-the-russian-orthodox-church/, accessed August 23, 2015.
- Dauce, Françoise, Marlene Laruelle, Anne Le Huerou, and Kathy Rousselet. 2015. "Introduction: What Does it Mean to Be a Patriot?" *Europe-Asia Studies* 67, no. 1: 1–7.
- Dekhtiarenko, Artem. 2015. "Politolog Piontkovskii o pobede Kitaia nad Rossiei, provale Putina i ego planakh na Donbasse" (Political Scientist Piontkovskii on China's Victory over Russia, Putin's Failure and His Plans in the Donbas). *Apostrof*, May 24, <http://apostrophe.com.ua/article/politics/2015-05-24/putin-davno-provalil-proekt-novorossiya-politolog-piontkovskiy/1749>, accessed June 28, 2015.
- "Diplomat: Rise in NATO Activity in Europe Near Russian Borders is Provocative." 2015. *Russia Beyond the Headlines*, August 26, at http://rbth.com/news/2015/08/26/diplomat-rise-in-nato-activity-in-europe-near-russian-borders-is-provoca_48743.html, accessed August 30, 2015.
- "Dmitrii Rogozin Naznacheni Starshim po Rossiiskoi Arktike, Pishut CMI" (Dmitrii Rogozin Is Appointed the Head of Russia's Arctic, Mass Media Informs). 2015. *RIA Novosti*, February 6, at <http://ria.ru/politics/20150206/1046191749.html#ixzz3ip2TthDb>, accessed August 14, 2015.
- "Dmitrii Rogozin probraisa na Shpitsbergen: 'Arktika—Russkaia Mekka'" (Dmitrii Rogozin Snuck onto Spitsbergen: "The Arctic Is a Russian Mecca"). 2015. *RTVi*, April 20, <http://www.rtv.com/video/24771>, accessed April 30, 2015.
- Donaldson, Robert H., Joseph L. Noguee, and Vidya Nadkarni. 2014. *The Foreign Policy of Russia: Changing Systems, Enduring Interests*, 5th edition. Armonk, NY: M.E. Sharpe.
- Emmerson, Charles. 2012. "Arctic Opening: Opportunity and Risk in the High North." London: Chatham House.
- Emmerson, Charles. 2010. *The Future History of the Arctic*. New York: Public Affairs.
- Evgrafov, Il'ia. 2015. "Pentagon sopostavil aktivnost' Rossii v ATR s periodom 'Kholodnoi Voiny'" (The Pentagon Compares Russia's Activity in the Asian-Pacific Region with the "Cold War" Era), *MK. RU*, April 16, at www.mk.ru/politics/2015/04/16/pentagon-sopostavil-aktivnost-rossii-v-atr-s-periodom-kholodnoy-voyny.html, accessed June 3, 2015.
- "Executive Order on Implementing Plans for Developing Armed Forces and Modernising Military-Industrial Complex." 2012. The Kremlin, May 7, at <http://en.kremlin.ru/events/president/news/15242>, accessed July 12, 2014.
- "Expanded Meeting of the Defense Ministry Board." 2014. The Kremlin, December 19, <http://en.kremlin.ru/events/president/news/47257>, accessed March 14, 2015.
- Flikke, Geir. 2011. "An Arctic Home? The Arctic Policies of Norway and Russia." In *Arctic Security in an Age of Climate Change: Between Multilateral Governance and Geopolitics*, ed. James Kraska. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Forsberg, Tuomas. 2014. "Status Conflicts between Russia and the West: Perceptions and Emotional Biases." *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 47, no. 3–4:323–31.
- Forsberg, Tuomas, Regina Heller, and Reinhard Wolf. 2014. "Status and Emotions in Russian Foreign Policy." *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 47, no. 3–4:261–68.
- Gaddy, Clifford, and Michael O'Hanlon. 2015. "Toward a 'Reagonov' Russia: Russian Security Policy after Putin." *The Washington Quarterly* 38, no. 2, at https://twq.elliott.gwu.edu/sites/twq.elliott.gwu.edu/files/downloads/Gaddy-O'Hanlon_Summer%202015.pdf, accessed September 1, 2015.
- Gaddy, Clifford G. 2015. "One Year of Western Sanctions against Putin: We Still Live in Different Worlds." *Brookings*, March 9, at www.brookings.edu/blogs/order-from-chaos/posts/2015/03/09-one-year-western-sanctions-against-russia-gaddy, accessed June 13, 2015.
- Gorokhov, Vitalii Aleksandrovich. 2015. "Forward Russia! Sports Mega-events as a Venue for Building National Identity." *Nationalities Papers* 43, no. 2: 267–82.
- Grove, Thomas. 2015. "Russia Starts Nationwide Show of Force." *Reuters*, March 16, at www.reuters.com/article/2015/03/16/us-russia-military-exercises-idUSKBN0MC0JO20150316, accessed March 20, 2015.

- Heller, Regina. 2014. "Russia's Quest for Respect in the International Conflict Management of Kosovo." *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 47, no. 3–4: 333–43.
- Hille, Kathrin. 2015. "Transcript: Interview with Sergei Ivanov." *Financial Times*, June 21, at www.ft.com/intl/cms/s/0/b81bbd70-17f0-11e5-a130-2e7db721f996.html#axzz3pDTxDfTA, accessed June 26, 2015.
- Holland, Andrew. 2014. Testimony at a Hearing on "The United States as an Arctic Nation: Opportunities in the High North." House Committee on Foreign Affairs, Subcommittee on Europe, Eurasia, and Emerging Threats. December 10.
- Isachenkov, Vladimir. 2015. "Russia Continues Massive Military Modernization Despite Economic Woes." *Business Insider*, February 4, at www.businessinsider.com/russia-continues-massive-military-modernization-despite-economic-woes-2015-2, accessed September 14, 2015.
- Ivanov, Dmitrii. 2015. "Ot patriotizma k politicheskomu terroru" (From Patriotism to Political Terror). *Profile*, March 4, at www.profile.ru/society/item/93378-ot-patriotizma-k-politicheskomu-terroru, accessed May 22, 2015.
- Joenniemi, Pertti, and Alexander Sergunin. 2014. "Paradiplomacy as a Capacity-Building Strategy: The Case of Russia's Northwestern Subnational Actors." *Problems of Post-Communism* 61, no. 6: 18–33.
- Josephson, Paul R. 2014. *The Conquest of the Russian Arctic*. Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.
- Josephson, Paul R. 1995. "'Projects of the Century' in Soviet History: Large-Scale Technologies from Lenin to Gorbachev." *Technology and Culture* 36, no. 3: 519–59.
- Keil, Katherine. 2014. "The Role of Arctic Hydrocarbons for Future Energy Security." *NAPSNet Special Reports*, January 7, at <http://nautilus.org/napsnet/napsnet-special-reports/the-role-of-arctic-hydrocarbons-for-future-energy-security/>, accessed March 14, 2016.
- Kennedy, Charles. 2015. "Russia Will Put Its Arctic Ambitions on Hold." *Oilprice.com*, September 17, at <http://oilprice.com/Latest-Energy-News/World-News/Russia-Puts-Arctic-Dreams-On-Hold.html>, accessed March 24, 2016.
- Kirby, Henry. 2015. "Russian Poll on Nationalism and Xenophobia Produces Worrying Results." *Business New Europe*, August 25, at www.bne.eu/content/story/bnechart-russian-poll-nationalism-and-xenophobia-produces-worrying-results, accessed August 29, 2015.
- "Konstantin Zaikov: Arctic Floating University, A Unique Project." 2015. *The Arctic*, August 25, at <http://arctic.ru/analitic/20150825/144753.html>, accessed on November 15, 2015.
- Koranyi, Balazs. 2013. "Ice Levels, Rule Changes to Boost Arctic Northern Sea Route." *Reuters*, May 29, at www.reuters.com/article/2013/05/29/us-shipping-arctic-idUSBRE94S0DG20130529, accessed May 23, 2015.
- Kortunov, Andrei. 2016. "How Not to Talk with Russia." Russian International Affairs Council, March 15, at http://russiancouncil.ru/en/inner/?id_4=7354#top-content, accessed March 20, 2016.
- Kotkin, Stephen. 2015. "The Resistible Rise of Vladimir Putin." *Foreign Affairs* 94, no. 2: 140–53.
- Laqueur, Walter. 2015. *Putinism: Russia and Its Future with the West*. New York: St. Martin's Press.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2015a. "Patriotic Youth Clubs in Russia: Professional Niches, Cultural Capital, and Narratives of Social Engagement." *Europe-Asia Studies* 67, no. 1: 8–27.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2015b. "Russia as a 'Divided Nation,' from Compatriots to Crimea." *Problems of Post-Communism*, 62, pp. 88–97.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2014a. *Russia's Arctic Strategies and the Future of the Far North*. M.E. Sharpe: Armonk, NY.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2014b. "Continuing Cooperation Patterns with Russia in the Arctic Region." *Polar Initiative Policy Brief Series—Arctic 2014: Who Gets a Voice and Why It Matters*. Washington, DC: The Woodrow Wilson International Center for Scholars, 1–3.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2014c. "Resource, State Assertion and International Recognition: Locating the Drivers of Russia's Arctic Policy." *The Polar Journal* 4, no. 2: 253–70.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2012a. "Conspiracy and Alternate History in Russia: A Nationalist Equation for Success?" *The Russian Review* 71: 565–80.
- Laruelle, Marlene. 2012b. "Larger, Higher, Farther North ... Geographical Metanarratives of the Nation in Russia." *Eurasian Geography and Economics* 53, no. 5: 557–74.
- Lebow, Richard Ned. 2010. *Why Nations Fight: Past and Future Motives for War*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Lebow, Richard Ned. 2008. *A Cultural Theory of International Relations*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.
- Lebow, Richard Ned. 2006. "Fear, Interest, and Honor: Outlines of a Theory of International Relations." *International Affairs* 82 no. 3: 431–48.
- Litvinova, Iulia and Igor Makarov. 2014. "The Northern Window to the Global World." *Global Affairs*, December 18, at <http://eng.globalaffairs.ru/number/The-Northern-Window-to-the-Global-World-17219>, accessed August 3, 2015.
- Long, P.E., S.K. Wurstner, E.C. Sullivan, H.T. Schaefer, and D.J. Bradley. 2008. *Preliminary Geospatial Analysis of Arctic Ocean Hydrocarbon Resources*. Richland, WA: Pacific Northwest National Laboratory.
- Lossan, Alexei. 2015. "Russia Waits on U.N. Response over Claim to Extend Arctic Borders." *Russia Beyond the Headlines*, September 3, at http://rbth.com/business/2015/09/03/russia_waits_on_un_response_over_claim_to_extend_arctic_borders_48947.html, accessed September 9, 2015.
- Lukin, Iu. F. 2013. *Rossiiskaia Arktika v izmeniaushchiesia mire* (The Russian Arctic in a Changing World). Arkhangel'sk: IPTs SAFU.
- Magomedov, Arbakhan. 2013. "Pogrom-makers on Guard in the Arctic: Does Russia Need Such Defenders of the National Interest?" *GLAS.ru*, November 27, at <http://glasru.ru/arbakhan-magomedov-pogrom-makers-on-guard-in-the-arctic-does-russia-need-such-defenders-of-the-national-interests/>, accessed February 16, 2015.
- "Majority of Russians Say U.S. Administration 'Extremely Hostile Toward Us'—Poll." 2015. *RT*, August 31, at www.rt.com/politics/313899-majority-of-russians-see-us/, accessed September 3, 2015.
- Majumdar, Dave. 2014. "Russia Preps Its North Pole Invasion." *GLAS.ru*, November 10, at <http://glasru.ru/russia-preps-its-north-pole-invasion/>, accessed February 2, 2015.
- Makarychev, Andrey, and Sergei Medvedev. 2015. "Biopolitics and Power in Putin's Russia." *Problems of Post-Communism* 62, no. 1: 45–54.
- Marson, James, and Selina Williams. 2015. "U.S. Sanctions Squeeze Major Gas Project in Russia." *The Wall Street Journal*, August 28, B1, B4.
- McCain, John. 2015. "The Real Arctic Threat." *The Wall Street Journal*, September 2, A13.
- McCannon, John. 1998. *Red Arctic: Polar Exploration and the Myth of the North in the Soviet Union 1932–1939*. Oxford: Oxford University Press.
- "Meeting with Permanent Members of the Security Council." 2014. The Kremlin, March 28, at <http://en.kremlin.ru/events/president/news/20652>, accessed June 22, 2015.
- Morgenthau, Hans J. 1973. *Politics Among Nations: The Struggle for Power and Peace*, 5th edition. New York: Alfred A. Knopf.
- "Most Russians Want Their Country to Dominate the Globe—Poll." 2014. *RT*, May 29, www.rt.com/politics/162256-russia-global-domination-preferences/, accessed July 14, 2015.
- "National Security Strategy." 2015. The White House, at https://www.whitehouse.gov/sites/default/files/docs/2015_national_security_strategy_2.pdf, accessed March 3, 2015.
- "New Security Landscape in the Arctic." 2015. *Alaska Dispatch News*, May 22, at www.adn.com/article/20150522/new-security-landscape-arctic, accessed June 1, 2015.
- Pettersen, Trude. 2016. "Declining Interest in Use of Northern Sea Route." *The Barents Observer*, March 18, at <http://thebarentsobserver.com/industry/2016/03/declining-interest-use-northern-sea-route>, accessed March 3, 2016.
- Pettersen, Trude. 2015. "Controversial Politician to Head Arctic Commission." *The Barents Observer*, February 6, at <http://barentsobserver.com/en/security/2015/02/controversial-politician-head-artic-commission-06-02>, accessed February 22, 2015.

- Petersson, Bo. 2014. "Still Embodying the Myth? Russia's Recognition as a Great Power and the Sochi Winter Games." *Problems of Post-Communism* 61, no. 1: 30–40.
- Petro, Nicolai N. 2015. "Russia's Orthodox Soft Power." The Carnegie Council for Ethics in International Affairs, March 23, at www.carnegiecouncil.org/publications/articles_papers_reports/727, accessed May 22, 2015.
- "Plan meropriiati, provodimykh v ramkakh dnia Arktiki v respublike Sakha (Yakutiia) v 2016 godu." 2016. Ministry of Sport of the Sakha Republic, at <http://minsport.sakha.gov.ru/afisha/front/view/id/529675>, accessed on March 27, 2016.
- Polunin, Andrei. 2015. "SShA Proigrali Arktiku" (The USA Has Lost the Arctic). *Svobodnaia pressa*, August 31, at <http://svpressa.ru/politic/article/130671/?tpop=1>, accessed September 3, 2015.
- "Pozitsii Rossii na mezhdunarodnoi arene" (Russia's Position in the International Arena). 2015. Levada Center, March 23, at www.levada.ru/23-03-2015/pozitsii-rossii-na-mezhdunarodnoi-arene, accessed July 7, 2015.
- "Putin: Arktika—Neot'emlemaia Chast' Rossii" (Putin: The Arctic is an Inalienable Part of Russia). 2013. *REGNUM*, October 3, at www.regnum.ru/news/polit/1715500.html, accessed June 16, 2015.
- "Putin na zasedanii Soveta Bezopasnosti po voprosu realizatsii gospolitika v Arktike 2014 god" (Putin Addresses a Meeting of the Security Council on Questions Concerning the Realization of State Policy in the Arctic in 2014). 2014. YouTube, April 22, at <https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=2hBhgmF9Rj0>, accessed August 2, 2015.
- RWGE Annual Report. 2013. Barents Euro-Arctic Council, Regional Working Group on Environment, at http://www.barentsinfo.fi/beac/docs/RWGE_Annual_Report_2013.pdf, accessed on September 13, 2015.
- "Rasshirennoe Zasedanie Kollegii Ministerstva Oborony" (Expanded Meeting of the Defense Ministry Collegium). 2013. The Kremlin, February 27, at www.kremlin.ru/news/17588, accessed October 27, 2013.
- "Razvitie Arktiki kak Regiona Rossii" (The Development of the Arctic as a Region of Russia). 2014. YouTube, September 1, at <https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=NyAcP6czJL8>, accessed June 21, 2015.
- "Rogozin: Active Development of Arctic Shelf to Cause Conflict of Interest, Sabotage." 2013. *Interfax*, June 28, at www.interfax.com/news/inf.asp?id=426673, accessed June 22, 2014.
- "Rogozin ob Osvoenii Arktiki" (Rogozin on the Mastering of the Arctic). 2013. *Oko planety*, December 20, at oko-planet.ru/politik/politiklist/223568-rogozin-ob-osvoenii-arktiki.html, accessed February 16, 2015.
- "Rogozin: Rossiia dolzhna priiti v Arktiku i sdelat' ee svoei" (Rogozin: Russia Must Go to the Arctic and Take It as Its Own). *Vzgliad*, April 19, at www.vz.ru/news/2015/4/19/740841.html, accessed April 30, 2015.
- "Rogozin sravnil Norvegiu s 'zakopavshim golovu v sneg Arkticheskim strausom'" (Rogozin Compares Norway to an Arctic Ostrich Burying its Head in the Snow). 2015. *Vzgliad*, August 11, at www.vz.ru/news/2015/8/11/760610.html, accessed September 12, 2015.
- "Rogozin vozglavil komissiiu po razvitiu Arktiki" (Rogozin Heads the Commission for the Development of the Arctic). 2015. *TV Ts*, March 17, at www.tvc.ru/news/show/id/63670, accessed August 14, 2015.
- "Rossiia v 2015 godu ukrepit voiska v Krymu, Kaliningrade, i Arktike" (Russia to Strengthen Troops in the Crimea, Kaliningrad and the Arctic in 2015). 2015. *Slavianska info*, January 16, at <http://slavyanka.info/archives/78924>, accessed February 2, 2015.
- "Rossiiskie vlasti vydeliat na uborku v Arktike 1.6 mlrd rublei." 2016. *Argumenty i fakty*, March 29, at http://www.aif.ru/society/nature/rossiyskie-vlasti-vydelyat-na-uborku-v-arktike-1_6-mlrd-rublei, accessed March 30, 2016.
- "Russia Begins Massive Air Force Exercise." 2015. BBC News, May 26, at www.bbc.com/news/world-europe-32877936, accessed June 22, 2015.
- "Russia Opposes 'mini-NATO' in Arctic." 2011. *China Daily*, September 15, at http://europe.chinadaily.com.cn/world/2011-09-15/content_13697498.htm, accessed July 3, 2015.
- "Russia Reopens Military Base to Control Key Part of Arctic: Putin." 2016. *Sputnik News*, September 16, at <http://sputniknews.com/russia/20160916/183501749/Russia-Reopens-Military-Base-to-Control-Key-Part-of-Arctic-Putin.html>, accessed June 2, 2015.
- "Russian Arctic Shelf Expansion Claim to UN Beneficial for Denmark, Canada." 2015. *Sputnik News*, August 4, at <http://sputniknews.com/world/20150804/1025382470.html>, accessed August 6, 2015.
- "Russian Federation Marine Doctrine." 2015. The Kremlin, July 26, at <http://en.kremlin.ru/events/president/news/50060>, accessed August 3, 2015.
- "Russia's National Idea: Matthew Rojansky Interview with Dr. Nikolai Zlobin." 2015. Kennan Institute, the Wilson Center, July 30, at www.wilsoncenter.org/article/russias-national-idea-matthew-rojansky-interviews-dr-nikolai-zlobin, accessed August 29, 2015.
- Sakwa, Richard. 2008. "New 'Cold War' or Twenty Years Crisis? Russia and International Politics." *International Affairs* 84, no. 2: 241–67.
- Sale, Richard, and Eugene Potapov. 2010. *The Scramble for the Arctic: Ownership, Exploitation, and Conflict in the Far North*. London: Frances Lincoln.
- Sergunin, Alexander, and Valery Konyshev. 2015. "Russia and the U.S. in the Arctic: A New Confrontation or Damage Limitation?" *Valdai Club*, September 21, at <http://valdaiclub.com>, accessed September 26, 2015.
- Sergunin, Alexander, and Valery Konyshev. 2014a. "Russia in Search of its Arctic Strategy: Between Hard and Soft Power?" *The Polar Journal* 4, no. 1: 69–87.
- Sergunin, Alexander, and Valery Konyshev. 2014b. "Four Dangerous Myths about Russia's Plans for the Arctic." *Russia Direct*, November 25, at www.russia-direct.org/analysis/four-dangerous-myths-about-russias-plans-arctic, accessed July 3, 2015.
- Shevtsova, Lilia. 2015. "Forward to the Past in Russia," *Journal of Democracy* 26, no. 2: 22–37.
- Staalesen, Atle. 2015a. "4.4 billion Euros for Russian Arctic Development." *The Barents Observer*, April 15, at <http://barentsobserver.com/en/arctic/2015/04/eu44-billion-russian-arctic-development-15-04>, accessed April 30, 2015.
- Staalesen, Atle. 2015b. "Expansionist Rogozin Looks to Arctic." *The Barents Observer*, April 21, at <http://barentsobserver.com/en/arctic/2015/04/expansionist-rogozin-looks-arctic-21-04>, accessed April 30, 2015.
- Staalesen, Atle. 2010. "Deal on Barents Sea Important for Europe." (April 27), at <http://barentsobserver.com/en/sections/articles/deal-barents-sea-important-europe>, accessed August 3, 2014.
- Stier, Gabor. 2014. "Can 'Putinism' Compete as a Political System?" (September 10), at http://valdaiclub.com/russia_and_the_world/71784.html, accessed February 3, 2015.
- Stoner, Kathryn, and Michael McFaul. 2015. "Who Lost Russia (This Time)? Vladimir Putin." *The Washington Quarterly* 38, no. 2 (Summer), at <http://twq.elliott.gwu.edu/who-lost-russia-time-vladimir-putin>, accessed August 27, 2015.
- Swart, Erik. 2016. "Defeat, Honor and the News: The Case of the Fall of Breda (1625) and the Dutch Republic." *European History Quarterly* 46, no. 1: 6–26.
- Tajfel, H. 1978. "The Psychological Structure of Intergroup Relations." *Differentiation between Social Groups: Studies in the Social Psychology of Intergroup Relations*. London: Academic.
- "The Development Strategy of the Arctic Zone of the Russian Federation." 2013 International Expert Council on Cooperation in the Arctic, April 14, at www.iecca.ru/en/legislation/strategies/item/99-the-development-strategy-of-the-arctic-zone-of-the-russian-federation, accessed October 21, 2014.
- Trainor, Catherine. 2014. "Why Russia's Arctic Strategy is Starting to Worry NATO." *Russia Direct*, November 19, at www.russia-direct.org/why-russias-arctic-strategy-starting-worry-nato, accessed June 3, 2015.
- Tsygankov, Andrei P. 2014. "The Frustrating Partnership: Honor, Status, and Emotions in Russia's Discourses of the West." *Communist and Post-Communist Studies* 47, no. 3–4:345–54.

- Tszin'chzhoi, Chzhao, Ian Khai, Li Yunmin, and Liao Tao. 2014. "Kitai 'zapustil' slantsevuiu revoliutsiiu." (China 'Launches' a Shale Revolution). *Oil & Gas Journal Russia*, 12 (December): 58–64.
- "Ukaz 'O Strategii national'noi bezopasnosti Rossiiskoi Federatsii do 2020 goda'" (Decree "On the National Security Strategy of the Russian Federation to 2020"). 2009. The Kremlin, May 13, at <http://kremlin.ru/events/president/news/4047>, accessed December 11, 2014.
- "Vladimir Putin predlozhit provesti Arkticheskii subbotnik" (Vladimir Putin Proposes an Arctic Subbotnik). 2010. NTV, April 29, at www.ntv.ru/novosti/191877/#ixzz22VGLrRJu, accessed July 3, 2014.
- "Vladimir Putin Signed Executive Order on the Polar Explorers' Day." The Kremlin, May 21, at <http://en.kremlin.ru/events/president/news/18145>, accessed September 10, 2014.
- "Vstrecha s uchastnikami ekologicheskoi ekspeditsii na Arkhipelag Zemlia Frantsa-Iosifa" (Meeting with Ecological Expedition Participants on the Franz Josef Archipelago). 2012. President of Russia, July 30, at s.prezident.rf/novosti/16082, accessed September 14, 2014.
- Ward, Steven. 2013. "Race, Status, and Japanese Revisionism in the Early 1930s." *Security Studies* 22, no. 4: 607–39.
- Wood, Steve. 2013. "Prestige in World Politics: History, Theory, Expression." *International Politics*, 50, no. 3: 387–411.
- Working Group I. 2013. Contribution to the IPCC Fifth Assessment Report, Climate Change 2013: The Physical Science Basis. Summary for Policymakers. Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change, at www.climatechange2013.org/images/uploads/WGIAR5-SPM_Approved27Sep2013.pdf, accessed May 3, 2015.
- Wright, Robert. 1994. *The Moral Animal: Evolutionary Psychology and Everyday Life*. New York: Pantheon.
- Zamyatina, Tamara. 2015. "US 2015 Military Strategy Adds Chill to New Cold War Against Russia— Rogov." *TASS*, July 2, at <http://tass.ru/en/opinions/805511>, accessed July 5, 2015.
- Zamyatina, Tamara. 2014. "Russia Focuses Efforts on Expanding Presence in Arctic." *ITAR TASS*, October 30, at en.itar-tass.com/opinions/1965, accessed October 31, 2014.